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Complete Answer Key — Exam Ready

GROUP-A | Fill in the Blanks / Short Answer | 1 × 10 = 10 Marks | Answer any TEN

QUESTION I

Hofstede's cultural dimensions theory identifies dimensions such as power distance, individualism vs. collectivism, and __________.

ANSWER

Masculinity vs. Femininity (other dimensions: Uncertainty Avoidance, Long-term vs. Short-term Orientation, Indulgence vs. Restraint). Hofstede studied employees across 70+ countries to identify how national culture shapes workplace behavior.

QUESTION II

__________ emphasized designing and managing organization on an impersonal, rational basis through clearly defined authority, formal record keeping and uniform application of standard rules.

ANSWER

Max Weber's Bureaucracy. Weber proposed that organizations should be run on rational, impersonal principles — with clearly defined roles, written rules, and formal records — instead of personal relationships or favoritism.

QUESTION III

The personality type of people who believe that they are the masters of their destiny is __________.

ANSWER

Internal Locus of Control (Internals). These people believe their outcomes are determined by their own actions and decisions. They take personal responsibility, work harder, and are generally more motivated than people with external locus of control (who blame luck or circumstances).

QUESTION IV

A group that is relatively permanent and is specified in the organizational structure is called __________.

ANSWER

Formal Group. A formal group is officially created by the organization for a specific purpose — like a department, committee, or task force. It has a defined structure, roles, and authority. Example: the Finance Department or the HR Committee.

QUESTION V

Employees engaged in organizational politics often use tactics such as __________ to gain power and influence.

ANSWER

Networking, coalition building, impression management, and controlling information. These are the common political tactics employees use to build influence beyond their formal authority — especially when resources are scarce or decisions are ambiguous.

QUESTION VI

Managing __________ teams requires understanding and leveraging cultural differences for effective collaboration.

ANSWER

Cross-cultural (multicultural / global) teams. These are teams made up of members from different countries and cultures. Managing them requires cultural sensitivity, clear communication norms, and an understanding of how different cultures approach hierarchy, conflict, and decision-making.

QUESTION VII

The first set of Hawthorne experiments dealing with lighting — the main conclusion was that __________.

ANSWER

Changes in physical working conditions (like lighting) had **little direct effect on productivity.** What actually mattered was that workers felt they were being observed and cared about — this psychological feeling of being special boosted their performance. This is called the **Hawthorne Effect.**

QUESTION VIII

__________ determines the behaviour of individuals and workgroups and affects the overall performance of the organisation.

ANSWER

Organizational Culture. It is the shared set of values, beliefs, norms, and practices that define how people think and behave inside an organization. A strong positive culture leads to high performance; a toxic culture leads to low morale and poor results.

QUESTION IX

In group development, a leader unites the team with motivation. This stage is called __________.

ANSWER

Norming (Tuckman's Model of Group Development). In the Norming stage, conflicts settle down, team members develop mutual respect, and the leader brings the group together — building unity, shared norms, and motivated collaboration.

QUESTION X

Organizational politics can lead to __________ among employees and can undermine trust and collaboration.

ANSWER

Conflict, stress, and distrust. When employees engage in political behavior — manipulating information, forming secret alliances, or undermining colleagues — it creates a toxic environment where teamwork and honest communication break down.

QUESTION XI

Why is cultural sensitivity important for effective cross-cultural communication in international business?

ANSWER

Cultural sensitivity means understanding and respecting the values, customs, and communication styles of other cultures. In international business, it prevents misunderstandings that can destroy business relationships, helps build trust with partners and clients from different backgrounds, and allows companies to adapt their products, marketing, and management style to local expectations — making them more successful globally.

QUESTION XII

As per which approach, factors like Technology, Environment and Organisation size should be considered for designing a more effective organisational structure?

ANSWER

Contingency Approach (also called Situational Approach). It says there is no one best way to structure or manage an organization — the right design depends on situational factors like the technology used, the nature of the external environment (stable or dynamic), and the size of the organization.

GROUP-B | Short Answer Type | 5 × 3 = 15 Marks | Answer any THREE

QUESTION 2

Describe Contingency Approach. 5 Marks

INTRODUCTION

The Contingency Approach is one of the most practical and widely accepted theories of management. It argues that there is **no single best way** to manage or organize a business. The right approach always depends on the specific situation — the environment, technology, people, and size of the organization. A good manager must first study the situation, then choose the most suitable management style.

KEY POINTS

- No universal "one-size-fits-all" management style
- Right structure depends on: environment, technology, size, and people
- Stable environment → mechanistic (rigid) structure
- Dynamic environment → organic (flexible) structure
- Managers must diagnose the situation before deciding

DIAGRAM — CONTINGENCY APPROACH LOGIC

Identify the Situation	What is the environment like? Is technology simple or complex? How big is the organization?
↓	
Analyse Key Variables	Environment (stable/dynamic) → Technology (routine/complex) → Size (small/large) → People (skilled/unskilled)
↓	
Choose the Right Approach	Stable + large = Mechanistic structure (formal rules, clear hierarchy). Dynamic + small = Organic structure (flexible, decentralized).
↓	
Implement & Review	Apply the chosen management style, monitor results, and adapt again if the situation changes.

EXPLANATION OF KEY VARIABLES

1. **Environment**

A stable environment (like manufacturing standard products) favors rigid, rule-based structures. A fast-changing environment (like tech startups or fashion) requires flexible, adaptive structures where decisions can be made quickly at lower levels.

2. **Technology**

Routine technology (assembly line) works best with a structured, formal organization. Complex or innovative technology needs a flexible organization where employees have freedom to experiment and problem-solve.

3. **Organisation Size**

Large organizations need more formal rules, clear authority, and standardized processes to coordinate many people. Small organizations can be informal and rely on direct communication.

4 **People**

Highly skilled, experienced employees may prefer autonomy and participative management. Less experienced employees may need more direction and closer supervision.

CONCLUSION

The Contingency Approach teaches managers to be flexible thinkers — not to follow a fixed formula, but to read their situation carefully and choose the management style that fits best. It is the most realistic approach to managing complex, changing organizations.

QUESTION 3

Explain the difference between leaders and managers. 5 Marks

INTRODUCTION

Although the words "leader" and "manager" are often used as if they mean the same thing, they are actually quite different. A **manager** focuses on organizing, planning, and controlling resources to achieve set goals. A **leader** focuses on inspiring, motivating, and guiding people toward a vision. The most effective people in any organization combine both — but understanding the difference is essential for organizational behaviour.

KEY DIFFERENCES AT A GLANCE

- Manager = does things right | Leader = does the right things
- Manager gets authority from their position | Leader gets it from personal influence
- Manager maintains stability | Leader drives change
- Manager has subordinates | Leader has followers

DIFFERENCE TABLE — MANAGER VS LEADER

Basis of Difference	Manager	Leader
Focus	Planning, organizing, and controlling day-to-day operations	Inspiring people and guiding them toward a long-term vision
Source of Power	Formal authority — comes from the job title/position	Personal influence — comes from trust, charisma, and expertise

Approach to Work	Maintains order, follows processes, reduces risk	Drives change, takes calculated risks, challenges the status quo
Relationship with People	Directs and supervises subordinates	Motivates and empowers followers
Key Question	"How do we do this correctly?"	"Why are we doing this, and is it the right thing?"
Time Horizon	Short-term — focused on current targets and deadlines	Long-term — focused on vision and future direction
Famous Quote	"Managers do things right" — Warren Bennis	"Leaders do the right things" — Warren Bennis

CONCLUSION

A good organization needs both managers and leaders. Managers ensure smooth daily operations, while leaders provide direction and inspiration. The best professionals develop both sets of skills — they manage systems and processes, while leading and motivating the people around them.

QUESTION 4

State general differences between work groups and work teams. 5 Marks

INTRODUCTION

Many people use "group" and "team" interchangeably, but in Organizational Behaviour they are distinctly different. A **work group** is a collection of people who share information and work independently — each person does their own job. A **work team** is a tightly connected unit where members work together interdependently toward one shared collective goal, producing results that are greater than what any individual could achieve alone.

KEY POINTS

- Group: individual effort + individual accountability
- Team: collective effort + mutual accountability
- Team produces positive synergy — output > sum of individual inputs
- Teams have complementary skills; groups may have random skills

DIFFERENCE TABLE — WORK GROUP VS WORK TEAM

Basis of Difference	Work Group	Work Team
Goal	Members share information to help each person do their own job better	Members work together toward one common collective goal
Synergy	Neutral or negative — no extra output from working together	Positive synergy — combined output is greater than individual outputs added together
Accountability	Individual — each person is responsible only for their own work	Both individual and mutual — members are jointly responsible for the team's result
Skills	Random and varied — members may have unrelated skills	Complementary — each member's skills fill a gap needed by the team
Leadership	Single, strong formal leader who directs the group	Shared or rotating leadership — members lead in their area of expertise
Interdependence	Low — members work relatively independently	High — members rely on each other constantly
Example	A group of doctors in different departments who share patient data	A surgical team — surgeon, anesthesiologist, nurses — working together on one patient

CONCLUSION

While both groups and teams involve multiple people, teams produce far better results when tasks require coordination, creativity, and interdependence. Organizations should build true teams — with shared goals, mutual accountability, and complementary skills — to achieve high performance.

QUESTION 5

Define authority and how is it different from power.

5 Marks

INTRODUCTION

In organizations, **authority** and **power** are two closely related but different concepts. Authority is the formal, official right to give orders and make decisions — it comes with your job title. Power is broader — it is the ability to influence others' behavior, whether or not you hold a formal position. Every person with authority has power, but a person can have significant power without any formal authority at all.

KEY POINTS

- Authority = formal right granted by the organization through a position
- Power = ability to influence others' behavior (formal or informal)
- Authority is always a subset of power
- Power can come from expertise, relationships, charisma, or control of resources
- A person can have power without authority (e.g., an informal team leader)

DIFFERENCE TABLE — AUTHORITY VS POWER

Basis of Difference	Authority	Power
Definition	Formal, legitimate right to give orders and make decisions	Broader ability to influence others' behavior in any way
Source	Comes from the organizational position / job title	Can come from expertise, charisma, relationships, information, or resources
Nature	Always formal and officially recognized	Can be formal (through position) or informal (through personal traits)
Direction	Flows downward through the chain of command	Can flow in any direction — upward, downward, or sideways
Dependency	Lost when the person leaves the position	Personal power (expertise, charisma) travels with the person
Example	A manager ordering their team to complete a report by Friday	A senior technical expert influencing decisions even without a management title

CONCLUSION

Authority gives a manager the right to lead, but power gives them the real ability to influence. The most effective leaders combine both — using their formal authority wisely while also building personal power through expertise, trust, and strong relationships with their team.

QUESTION 6

Write in brief about McGregor's Theory X and Theory Y. **5 Marks**

INTRODUCTION

Douglas McGregor, in his 1960 book *The Human Side of Enterprise*, proposed two contrasting sets of assumptions that managers hold about their employees. He called these **Theory X** (negative view) and

Theory Y (positive view). These assumptions shape the way managers treat their employees, design jobs, and set up control systems. McGregor argued that most traditional management was based on Theory X, but that Theory Y assumptions lead to better motivation and performance.

KEY POINTS

- Theory X: employees dislike work, need to be controlled, avoid responsibility
- Theory Y: employees enjoy work, are self-motivated, seek responsibility
- Theory X → authoritarian, controlling management style
- Theory Y → participative, empowering management style
- McGregor preferred Theory Y for long-term motivation and performance

DIFFERENCE TABLE — THEORY X VS THEORY Y

Basis of Difference	Theory X	Theory Y
View of Employees	Employees are lazy, dislike work, and avoid it if they can	Employees find work natural — like rest or play — and enjoy it
Motivation	Must be forced, threatened, or bribed to work	Self-motivated — work for personal satisfaction and growth
Responsibility	Avoid responsibility; prefer to be told what to do	Willingly accept and seek responsibility
Creativity	Most employees have little creativity or imagination	Creativity and problem-solving ability are widely distributed among employees
Management Style	Authoritarian — close supervision, strict rules, punishment-based	Participative — trust employees, give autonomy, focus on development
Result	Compliance — employees do just enough to avoid punishment	Commitment — employees give their best because they care about their work

CONCLUSION

McGregor's framework reminds managers that how they think about their employees directly shapes how they manage them — and in turn, how those employees perform. Modern management has moved heavily toward Theory Y thinking, recognizing that employees who are trusted, empowered, and given meaningful work consistently outperform those who are controlled and supervised.

GROUP-C | Long Answer Type | 15 × 3 = 45 Marks | Answer any THREE

QUESTION 7

What do you mean by group cohesiveness? Discuss in detail the causes and consequences of group cohesiveness in an organization. 15 Marks

INTRODUCTION

Group cohesiveness refers to the degree to which members of a group are attracted to one another, feel a sense of belonging, and are motivated to stay in and contribute to the group. Think of it as the "glue" that holds a group together. A highly cohesive group feels and acts like a unified whole — members support each other, communicate openly, and share a common identity and purpose. It is one of the most important factors that determines how effectively a group performs.

KEY POINTS

- **Causes:** Similarity, small size, frequent interaction, common goals, external threat, group status, time together
- **Positive effects:** Higher satisfaction, better communication, increased productivity (if goals align)
- **Negative effects:** Groupthink, resistance to outsiders, can reduce performance if group goals conflict with org goals

DIAGRAM — CAUSES → COHESIVENESS → CONSEQUENCES

Causes Build Up

Similarity of members + Small group size + Frequent interaction + Common goals + External threat + Group prestige

↓

High Group Cohesiveness

Members are strongly attracted to each other, feel belonging, want to stay in the group, and work together willingly.

↓

Are group goals aligned with org goals?

This is the critical question that determines whether cohesiveness helps or hurts the organization.

↓

YES → Positive Consequences

High productivity, better communication, low absenteeism, higher job satisfaction, strong morale.

NO → Negative Consequences	Groupthink, output restriction, resistance to change, conflict with management, insularity.

CAUSES OF GROUP COHESIVENESS — EXPLAINED

1. **Similarity of Members**
   When group members share similar values, attitudes, backgrounds, and interests, they naturally like each other more and form stronger bonds. People are more comfortable with those who think and feel like them.

2. **Small Group Size**
   In smaller groups, members interact more frequently and personally. They know each other well, trust each other more, and feel more responsible for the group's outcomes. Large groups tend to be more impersonal and less cohesive.

3. **Frequent Interaction and Proximity**
   People who work close together or interact often — whether physically or digitally — naturally build stronger relationships. Regular contact builds familiarity and trust over time.

4. **Common Goals and Shared Success**
   When members work toward the same goal and achieve it together, the shared experience of success strengthens their bond and sense of identity as a group.

5. **External Threat or Competition**
   Facing a common rival or challenge from outside (competition from another company, a difficult project deadline) pulls group members closer. The classic example: a sports team bonds most strongly when facing a tough opponent.

6. **Group Status and Prestige**
   Being part of a prestigious, exclusive, or high-status group increases members' desire to belong and stay. The more valuable the membership, the more cohesive the group tends to be.

CONSEQUENCES OF GROUP COHESIVENESS — EXPLAINED

✓ **Higher Member Satisfaction**
Cohesive groups provide emotional support, friendship, and a sense of belonging — making members more satisfied with their jobs and less likely to leave (lower turnover, lower absenteeism).

✓ **Better Communication and Cooperation**
Members of cohesive groups communicate more openly and honestly, share information freely, and cooperate willingly — because they trust each other and have a common interest in the group's success.

✓ **Higher Productivity (when goals align)**
When the group's goals match the organization's goals, cohesive groups consistently outperform less cohesive ones — they work harder, coordinate better, and produce more.

✗ **Groupthink (Negative)**

When cohesiveness becomes too strong, members start valuing harmony over honest discussion. They avoid disagreeing with the group's views — even when those views are wrong. This leads to poor, unchallenged decisions. Famous example: NASA's Challenger disaster was partly linked to groupthink.

✗ **Output Restriction (Negative)**

If a cohesive group decides collectively to slow down production (to avoid being given higher targets), every member will follow — even against their individual interest. High cohesiveness makes the group's norms more powerful than individual motivation.

CONCLUSION

Group cohesiveness is a double-edged sword. When properly managed — with group goals aligned to organizational goals — it is one of the most powerful drivers of team performance, satisfaction, and morale. But if left unchecked, it can lead to groupthink and counter-productive norms. Managers must foster cohesiveness intentionally while ensuring the group's direction always serves the organization's larger objectives.

QUESTION 8

Discuss the various techniques for managing stress both individually and at the workplace.

15 Marks

INTRODUCTION

Stress in the workplace occurs when job demands exceed an individual's ability to cope. It is one of the most serious issues in modern organizations — leading to reduced productivity, poor health, absenteeism, and high employee turnover. Stress can be managed at two levels: at the **individual level** (what the employee does for themselves) and at the **organizational level** (what the company does to reduce workplace stress for its employees). Both levels must work together for stress management to be truly effective.

KEY POINTS

- **Individual techniques:** Time management, exercise, relaxation, social support, work-life balance, cognitive restructuring
- **Organizational techniques:** Better job design, clear goals, improved communication, wellness programs, flexible work, counselling
- Best results come from combining both approaches

DIAGRAM — STRESS MANAGEMENT FRAMEWORK

Workplace Stress Identified

Stress arises when demands (workload, deadlines, conflict) exceed coping ability of the employee.

↓

Individual-Level Intervention

Employee takes personal action: exercise, time management, meditation, talking to friends, setting boundaries.

Organizational-Level Intervention

Organization takes action: redesign jobs, offer counselling, improve communication, provide flexible work options.

↓

Stress Reduced

Employee feels in control, more productive, healthier, and more satisfied with their work.

INDIVIDUAL-LEVEL TECHNIQUES — EXPLAINED

1. **Time Management**

   Prioritizing tasks, breaking big jobs into smaller steps, setting realistic deadlines, and avoiding procrastination reduces the feeling of being overwhelmed — the most common cause of daily workplace stress.

2. **Physical Exercise**

   Regular exercise — walking, yoga, gym, sports — releases endorphins (natural stress-relievers), reduces anxiety, improves sleep, and boosts energy levels. Even 30 minutes of walking daily makes a significant difference.

3. **Relaxation Techniques**

   Deep breathing, meditation, and mindfulness practices lower the body's physiological stress response — reducing heart rate, blood pressure, and mental tension. These can be practiced even during short breaks at work.

4. **Social Support**

   Talking to trusted friends, family members, or colleagues helps release emotional pressure and gain perspective on stressful situations. People with strong social networks handle stress far better than those who are isolated.

5. **Work-Life Balance**

   Setting clear limits between work time and personal time — not checking emails after 7pm, taking weekends off, using leave days — prevents the chronic stress that builds up when work invades every part of life.

6. **Cognitive Restructuring**

   This means changing how you think about stressful situations. Instead of seeing a difficult deadline as a threat, viewing it as a challenge to grow — changes the emotional response and reduces unnecessary anxiety.

ORGANIZATIONAL-LEVEL TECHNIQUES — EXPLAINED

1. **Better Job Design**

   Jobs that have variety, clear purpose, autonomy, and meaningful outcomes produce less stress than monotonous, unclear, or powerless roles. Redesigning jobs to give employees more control over their work reduces role-related stress.

2. **Clear Goal Setting**

   When employees know exactly what is expected of them — with clear, achievable, and measurable goals — role ambiguity disappears. Unclear expectations are one of the biggest sources of workplace stress.

3. **Improved Communication**

   Keeping employees regularly informed about organizational decisions, changes, and expectations reduces the stress caused by uncertainty and rumour. Open, transparent communication builds trust and security.

4. **Employee Wellness Programs**

   Organizations can offer counselling services, mental health support, stress management workshops, gym memberships, and regular health check-ups to proactively support employees' physical and mental well-being.

5. **Flexible Work Arrangements**

   Options like flexible working hours, work-from-home days, compressed work weeks, or job sharing allow employees to manage their personal and professional commitments — significantly reducing the stress caused by rigid schedules.

CONCLUSION

Stress is an unavoidable part of working life, but it does not have to be destructive. When individuals take responsibility for managing their own stress AND organizations actively create healthier work environments, the result is a workforce that is more resilient, more productive, and more satisfied. Stress management is not a luxury — it is a business necessity.

QUESTION 9

Explain Hofstede's cultural dimensions theory and discuss its implications for international management practices. Provide examples of how these dimensions impact organizational behavior.

15 Marks

INTRODUCTION

Geert Hofstede conducted one of the largest studies ever done on how culture shapes workplace behavior — studying over 116,000 IBM employees across 50+ countries in the 1970s. He identified **six key dimensions** along which national cultures differ from each other. His framework has become the most widely used tool for understanding cultural differences in international management. For managers working across borders, these dimensions explain why employees in different countries respond differently to the same leadership style, reward system, or organizational structure.

SIX DIMENSIONS AT A GLANCE

- **Power Distance** — how much inequality in authority is accepted
- **Individualism vs. Collectivism** — personal goals vs. group loyalty
- **Masculinity vs. Femininity** — competition vs. cooperation
- **Uncertainty Avoidance** — comfort with ambiguity and change
- **Long-term vs. Short-term Orientation** — future planning vs. immediate results
- **Indulgence vs. Restraint** — freedom to enjoy life vs. strict social norms

EACH DIMENSION EXPLAINED WITH EXAMPLES

1 **Power Distance**

This measures how much less-powerful people in a society accept that power is distributed unequally.
High Power Distance (India, Malaysia, China): Employees expect and respect a clear hierarchy. They do not question the boss's decisions. Managers give orders; employees follow.
Low Power Distance (Denmark, Sweden, Netherlands): Employees expect to be consulted and involved in decisions. A boss who demands blind obedience will be seen as autocratic and unprofessional.
Implication: Use directive leadership in high-PD countries; use participative leadership in low-PD countries.

2 **Individualism vs. Collectivism**

Individualist cultures (USA, UK, Australia): People prioritize personal goals, individual achievement, and independence. Employees are motivated by personal recognition, individual bonuses, and career advancement.
Collectivist cultures (China, Japan, India): People prioritize group harmony, family loyalty, and collective identity. Employees prefer team rewards, group recognition, and decisions that consider the whole group.
Implication: Individual performance bonuses work in the US; group-based incentives work better in Japan.

3 **Masculinity vs. Femininity**

Masculine cultures (Japan, Germany, USA): Value competitiveness, ambition, high earnings, and material success. Employees are motivated by achievement, promotion, and winning.
Feminine cultures (Netherlands, Norway, Sweden): Value cooperation, quality of life, work-life balance, and caring for others. Employees prefer a supportive environment over cutthroat competition.
Implication: Aggressive sales targets motivate in masculine cultures; collaboration and work-life balance programs work better in feminine ones.

4 **Uncertainty Avoidance**

High UA cultures (Greece, Japan, France): People feel anxious about ambiguity and unknown situations. They prefer strict rules, detailed contracts, and structured procedures.
Low UA cultures (Singapore, Jamaica, Denmark): People are comfortable with ambiguity, open to change,

and flexible with rules.
Implication: Provide detailed job descriptions and clear procedures in high-UA countries; allow more flexibility and improvisation in low-UA ones.

5 **Long-term vs. Short-term Orientation**

Long-term oriented cultures (China, Japan, South Korea): Value perseverance, thrift, planning for the future, and long-term relationship building.
Short-term oriented cultures (USA, UK, many African countries): Value quick results, tradition, and fulfilling immediate social obligations.
Implication: Negotiate patiently and build relationships first in China; focus on ROI and quick wins in the USA.

CONCLUSION

Hofstede's framework is a powerful tool that helps international managers avoid the costly mistake of assuming everyone around the world thinks and behaves the same way. By understanding how cultures differ on these dimensions, managers can adapt their leadership style, HR practices, communication approach, and organizational structure to suit each country — leading to more effective, respectful, and successful international management.

QUESTION 10

Highlight the need for knowledge of OB to a practicing manager. 15 Marks

INTRODUCTION

Organizational Behaviour (OB) is the systematic study of how individuals, groups, and structures affect and are affected by behavior within organizations. For a practicing manager, OB is not just an academic subject — it is a daily toolkit. Everything a manager does — motivating employees, building teams, resolving conflicts, managing change, giving feedback — requires an understanding of human behavior at work. Without OB knowledge, a manager is essentially flying blind.

KEY REASONS A MANAGER NEEDS OB KNOWLEDGE

- To understand why employees behave the way they do
- To motivate employees effectively using the right theories
- To lead teams and develop leadership skills
- To improve communication and resolve conflicts
- To manage change without resistance
- To build high-performing teams
- To manage diverse and cross-cultural workforces

- To improve job satisfaction and reduce turnover

DIAGRAM — OB KNOWLEDGE → BETTER MANAGEMENT OUTCOMES

Manager Studies OB	Learns theories of motivation, leadership, group dynamics, culture, communication, and change management.
↓	
Applies OB Knowledge	Uses the right leadership style, designs motivating jobs, builds cohesive teams, resolves conflicts effectively.
↓	
Employees Respond Positively	Higher motivation, better communication, less conflict, stronger commitment to organizational goals.
↓	
Organizational Success	Higher productivity, lower absenteeism and turnover, better innovation, stronger competitive advantage.

EACH NEED EXPLAINED IN DETAIL

1. **Understanding Employee Behaviour**

   OB helps managers understand why employees act, think, and feel the way they do. This understanding allows managers to predict behaviour and take preventive action before problems escalate — rather than reacting after something has gone wrong.

2. **Improving Employee Motivation**

   Motivation theories — Maslow's Hierarchy of Needs, Herzberg's Two-Factor Theory, McGregor's Theory X & Y, McClelland's nAch — give managers practical tools to design reward systems, job structures, and incentives that genuinely motivate different types of employees.

3. **Effective Leadership**

   OB introduces managers to various leadership styles — transformational, transactional, servant, situational — and helps them identify which style works best for which situation and which type of employee.

4. **Better Communication and Conflict Resolution**

   OB teaches interpersonal and group communication dynamics. Understanding barriers to communication, conflict styles, and negotiation strategies helps managers reduce misunderstandings and resolve disputes constructively before they damage team performance.

5. **Managing Organizational Change**

   Change is constant in modern organizations. OB explains why employees resist change (Lewin's Change Model, Kotter's 8-Step Model) and gives managers specific strategies to reduce resistance and lead their team through change smoothly.

6 **Building High-Performing Teams**

Knowledge of group dynamics, Tuckman's stages of team development (Forming, Storming, Norming, Performing), and team cohesiveness helps managers build teams that collaborate effectively and produce excellent results.

7 **Managing Diversity and Cross-Cultural Teams**

In today's global workplace, managers work with people from different cultures, backgrounds, and generations. Hofstede's cultural dimensions and OB concepts on diversity help managers create inclusive environments where every employee can contribute fully.

8 **Improving Job Satisfaction and Reducing Turnover**

Understanding what makes employees satisfied or dissatisfied — through OB theories and attitude surveys — helps managers design better jobs, create positive work cultures, and reduce costly employee turnover.

CONCLUSION

Since management is fundamentally the art of getting work done through people, OB is not optional — it is the foundation of every management skill. A manager without OB knowledge may know how to manage processes, systems, and budgets, but they will struggle to manage the most complex and valuable resource in any organization: *human beings*. OB knowledge transforms a good manager into a truly great leader.

QUESTION 11

Compare and contrast interpersonal and structural resources of power. Define political behaviour. What are some of the factors that contribute to organisational politics? 15 Marks

INTRODUCTION

In any organization, **power** is the ability to influence others' behavior. Power can come from two very different sources: from the **person themselves** (their personality, expertise, relationships) — called interpersonal power — or from the **position they hold** in the organizational structure (their role, access to resources, information) — called structural power. When people use power in ways that are not officially approved by the organization, purely to advance their own interests, it is called **organizational politics**. Understanding both types of power and what drives political behavior is essential for any manager.

KEY POINTS

- **Interpersonal power:** Reward, Coercive, Legitimate, Expert, Referent (French & Raven's 5 bases)
- **Structural power:** Control over resources, decision-making authority, information, network centrality
- Interpersonal power stays with the person; structural power stays with the position

- **Political behaviour:** Unofficial actions taken to acquire power for personal gain
- **Causes of politics:** Scarce resources, ambiguous goals, subjective appraisals, high-stakes decisions, power-hungry personalities

DIFFERENCE TABLE — INTERPERSONAL VS STRUCTURAL SOURCES OF POWER

Basis of Difference	Interpersonal Power	Structural Power
Source	Personal qualities of the individual — traits, skills, relationships	Position in the organizational structure — role, access, network
Types	Reward, Coercive, Legitimate, Expert, Referent power	Resource control, Decision authority, Information access, Network centrality
Tied to	The person — travels with them when they change jobs	The position — lost when the person leaves that role
Example	A highly respected senior doctor whose opinion influences decisions even without a management title	A department head who controls budget allocation and staff promotions
Durability	More durable — expertise and charisma are personal assets	Less durable — depends on holding the position
Visibility	Often informal and subtle	Formal and officially recognized

INTERPERSONAL POWER — 5 TYPES (FRENCH & RAVEN) EXPLAINED

1. **Reward Power**
   The ability to give positive outcomes — salary increases, promotions, praise, recognition, or desirable assignments. Employees comply to receive the reward.

2. **Coercive Power**
   The ability to punish — demotion, dismissal, negative reviews, or public criticism. Employees comply to avoid punishment. Overuse of coercive power damages trust and morale.

3. **Legitimate Power**
   Power that comes from holding a formal position in the hierarchy. Employees comply because they recognize the manager's right to give orders. This is the same as authority.

4. **Expert Power**
   Power based on specialized knowledge, skills, or experience. Employees follow because they genuinely believe this person knows best. Doctors, engineers, and IT specialists often have high expert power regardless of their title.

5 **Referent Power**

Power based on personal likeability, charisma, and admiration. Employees follow because they respect, admire, or identify with this person. The most powerful and lasting form of interpersonal power.

POLITICAL BEHAVIOUR AND ITS CAUSES — EXPLAINED

★ **Definition of Political Behaviour**

Political behaviour refers to activities that are *not officially sanctioned by the organization*, undertaken by individuals or groups to acquire, develop, or use power in order to achieve their own preferred outcomes — especially in situations where there is uncertainty, disagreement, or competition for limited resources.

1 **Scarcity of Resources**

When budgets, promotions, office space, or recognition are limited, employees compete for them — and those who play politics gain an unfair advantage. The more scarce the resource, the more intense the politics.

2 **Ambiguous Goals and Unclear Rules**

When policies, performance criteria, or decision-making processes are vague, employees have more room to manipulate situations in their favor. Clear, transparent rules reduce the space for political maneuvering.

3 **High-Stakes Decisions Under Uncertainty**

Major organizational decisions — restructuring, promotions, new project assignments — involve significant uncertainty. The higher the stakes and the more unclear the outcome, the more employees resort to political tactics to influence the decision.

4 **Subjective Performance Appraisal Systems**

When performance is evaluated subjectively rather than through measurable data, employees try to manage impressions and influence their evaluators politically — rather than simply performing well.

5 **Individual Personality (Machiavellianism, High nPow)**

Some individuals naturally have a high need for power (nPow) or high Machiavellianism — the belief that it is acceptable to manipulate others to achieve personal goals. These individuals are far more likely to engage in political behavior regardless of the organizational context.

> **CONCLUSION**
>
> Power — whether interpersonal or structural — is a natural and necessary part of organizational life. The key is how it is used. When power is used ethically and transparently, it drives performance and positive change. When it drives self-serving political behavior, it creates conflict, unfairness, and distrust. Managers must reduce the conditions that breed politics — by creating clear policies, fair appraisal systems, transparent decisions, and open communication channels.